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Workplace Harassment From the Victim's Perspective: A Theoretical Model and Meta-Analysis

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Although workplace harassment affects the lives of many employees, until recently it has been relatively ignored in the organizational psychology literature. First, the authors introduced an attribution- and reciprocity-based model that explains the link between harassment and its potential causes and consequences. The authors then conducted a meta-analysis to examine the potential antecedents and consequences of workplace harassment. As shown by the meta-analysis, both environmental and individual difference factors potentially contributed to harassment and harassment was negatively related to the well-being of both individual employees and their employing organizations. Furthermore, harassment contributed to the variance in many outcomes, even after controlling for 2 of the most commonly studied occupational stressors, role ambiguity and role conflict.

Keywords: bullying, harassment, workplace aggression, interpersonal conflict, occupational health psychology

The social environment at work can have both positive and negative effects on people. Among the most serious negative effects are those caused by *workplace harassment*, which is defined as interpersonal behavior aimed at intentionally harming another employee in the workplace, and it represents "a burgeoning research area in organizational psychology" (Aquino & Lamertz, 2004, p. 1023). Research on workplace harassment appears under many different labels (e.g., bullying, interpersonal conflict, social undermining, and abuse) and in different disciplines (Aquino & Lamertz, 2004; Einarsen, 2000; Keashly & Jagatic, 2000), but each label refers to the same overall construct (Aquino & Lamertz, 2004; Lapierre, Spector, & Leck, 2005). The present meta-analysis brings coherence to this research by summarizing and organizing it around theory.

Extreme harassment can include homicide and physical assault, but the more common, minor instances include obscene gestures, dirty looks, threats, yelling, giving the silent treatment, and belittling. The type of harassment reviewed here is not motivated by the sex or race of the victim (Einarsen, Raknes & Matthiesen, 1994) and is thus not covered by Title VII of U.S. civil rights law. Theft from the organization, showing up late for meetings, and whistle blowing (Neuman & Baron, 1997) can also be considered forms of aggression, but they do not fit the present definition of harassment because they are directly aimed at or harm the organization rather than being aimed at a specific person. This is similar to the distinction between counterproductive work behavior aimed at the individual versus aimed at the organization (Robinson & Bennett, 1995).

A Model of a Victim's View of Workplace Harassment

Figure 1 proposes a victim's view of workplace harassment (see Box 5 in the figure). The variables in the figure are numbered for easy reference. The model has underlying themes of reciprocity and attribution processes (Kelley, 1973). Research in many domains illustrates powerful effects of the norm of reciprocity (Cialdini, 2001; Gouldner, 1960). Victims might reciprocate with reactions directed toward the harassment perpetrator or toward the organization if they attribute the cause of harassment to them. Attribution for the cause of harassment can easily be made to the specific perpetrator, but there are also multiple reasons to blame (an attribution process) the organization because it can be seen as responsible for the actions and even the very presence of the perpetrator. Self-attributions are not expected to lead to reciprocal exchange with the organization or the perpetrator, however. In this case, harassment is experienced primarily in terms of stress, and typical stress outcomes are likely to occur.

Victims' personal characteristics might affect harassment, but victims are also likely to see the organization's climate and human resources systems (selection, training, and reward systems) as partially responsible through their effects on the nature of the workplace (presence of other stressors and presence of people who harass). Causal attributions can lead to the victim's experience of poor well-being, to attitudes and actions toward the perpetrator, and to perceptions of organizational injustice. If victims blame themselves, poor well-being, such as reduced self-esteem and increased depression, are likely to result. Negative attitudes and actions toward the perpetrator, in contrast, can be a form of reciprocity due to attributing causation to the perpetrator; indeed, Aquino and Lamertz (2004) reviewed research showing that perpetrators tend to report frequently being victims as well (e.g., r = .52 between being a victim and a perpetrator; Glomb & Liao,

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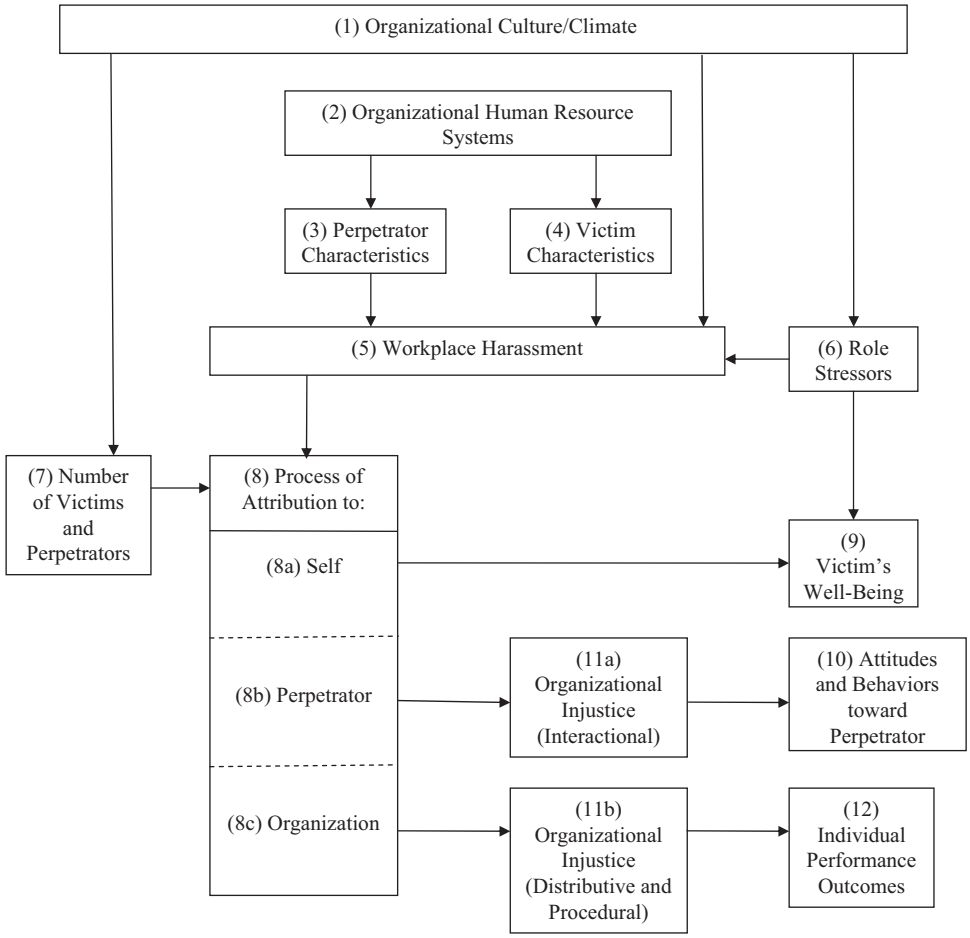

Figure 1. Reciprocity and attribution processes in workplace harassment. Boxes are numbered for ease of reference with the text.

2003). Finally, perceptions of organizational injustice lead to negative reactions that the victim justifies as retaliation against an organization that allows harassment.

People tend to make causal attributions to others for unpleasant events such as harassment, just as they do for the unpleasant experience of their own poor performance (Shaw, Wild, & Colquitt, 2003; Zuckerman, 1979), because a self-attribution for being harassed would reflect badly on one's self. In Figure 1, the victim's perception of the numbers of perpetrators and victims (Box 7) in the organization is one guiding factor in making attributions: If there are many victims and perpetrators, then the organization can be seen as responsible; if there are many victims but only one perpetrator, then the attribution can easily be made to the perpetrator because harassment is unique to that person; if the person is the only victim and there are multiple perpetrators, then the victim could blame him- or herself; and if the victim sees only one victim and one perpetrator in the organization, then it is a unique dyadic situation (see Aquino & Lamertz, 2004, for descriptions) and the attribution is indeterminate—however, an ego-protective tendency might prevail and lead to one of the attributions to others.

Antecedents of Harassment: Roles of Organization, Individual Differences, and Other Stressors

Theoretically, there are at least three categories of causes for workplace harassment: characteristics of the work environment, the perpetrator, and the victim. Victims can attribute or blame two of these antecedents on the organization. First, the organization can be seen as directly responsible for the presence of a perpetrator because its human resources systems (Box 2) select, train, and reward or punish perpetrators. Second, an organizational climate or culture (Box 1) permitting or encouraging harassment can be judged responsible both directly and indirectly (Aquino & Lamertz, 2004). In addition to climate's direct effects on harassment (Box 5), it can foster other forms of stress (Box 6), and harassment can flourish in stressful climates. Victims can easily blame the organization for its climate and for the existence of certain role stressors.

Role stressors (e.g., role conflict and ambiguity; Box 6) are related to workplace harassment (e.g., Spector & O'Connell, 1994), perhaps because harassers experience stressful emotions and lash out at coworkers. Harassment and role stressors have some commonality. Both are inherently social; role stressors are

characteristics of messages from other people at work, and harassment consists of behaviors from the same set of people.

There are a number of reasons why stressors might be antecedents of harassment. First, being exposed to work stressors might produce negative emotional and behavioral responses that encourage victimization. Second, victims who report the presence of high levels of stressors might be indicating the presence of ambient stressors experienced by everyone in the victim's work environment. Thus, when victims experience stressors, perpetrators might be experiencing many of the same stressors. High levels of stressors could cause some perpetrators to engage in harassment.

In addition to climate and job stress, personal characteristics can help determine potential harassment perpetrators. Researchers suggest that perpetrator (Box 3) impulsivity, emotional reactivity, and rebelliousness (Andersson & Pearson, 1999); cynicism and low tolerance for ambiguity (Ashforth, 1997); gender (e.g., Zapf, Einarsen, Hoel, & Vartia, 2003); and hierarchical position (e.g., Einarsen & Skogstad, 1996; Rayner, 1998) are related to becoming a perpetrator. Greenberg and Barling (1999) found positive correlations between aggression toward subordinates, coworkers, and supervisors, suggesting the cause might reside in the perpetrator. If perpetrator characteristics are partly responsible for the harassment, then victims can logically blame either the perpetrator or the organization (for allowing the harasser's behavior).

Victims who experience conflict at work also experience conflict with their spouses, family, and friends (Skjorshammer & Hofoss, 1999), and this broad experience of conflict suggests some characteristics of victims (Box 4) could also be antecedents to harassment. This would not lead to reciprocity. Indeed, victims might tend to believe themselves relatively unresponsible for harassment; however, it would be incomplete to ignore their role (Aquino & Lamertz, 2004; Lamertz & Aquino, 2004). Leymann (1996) argued that a victim's personality does not predict harassment, but other reviewers concluded the relationship is unclear (e.g., Hoel, Rayner, & Cooper, 1999). Researchers might be reluctant to examine this topic for fear that results could reinforce a tendency to blame the victim, but several studies report victims' traits are linked with harassment.

Positive affectivity (PA) and negative affectivity (NA) of the victim have been examined, with victims' PA negatively and NA positively associated with workplace harassment (e.g., Aquino, Grover, Bradfield, & Allen, 1999; Duffy, Ganster, & Pagon, 2002; Spector & O'Connell, 1994; Tepper, Duffy, Hoobler, & Ensley, 2006), but results were sometimes nonsignificant (e.g., Duffy et al., 2002; Tepper, Duffy, & Shaw, 2001). Thus, although there is a strong research theme regarding these two particular traits, results are not completely consistent. Other than NA and PA, Aquino (2000) found that victims' submissiveness was, but victim's domination was not, associated with being bullied. Clearly, the research on victim personality characteristics is far from complete. Effects of other characteristics are also logical. Among the Big Five (McCrae & Costa, 1987) personality characteristics, for example, agreeableness and conscientiousness are two possibilities. People who are conscientious and agreeable would seem less likely to be a target of harassment because they do less to irritate coworkers who are potential perpetrators than would people who are disagreeable and undependable. Although people who are more irritating can partly lead to victimization, research lags behind this explanatory theme.

In addition to dispositional variables, some studies have examined the role of victims' demographic characteristics. One possibility is that victim demographics could influence the effect–danger ratio (Bjorkqvist, Osterman, & Lagerspetz, 1994). That is, perpetrators' judgments of the potential costs and benefits of harassing could be influenced by victim demographics because certain demographic groups (e.g., women or those with low tenure) would tend to be "safer" targets. The empirical research in this area is mixed, however. Some research, for example, found that women are more likely to become the targets of workplace harassment than men are (e.g., Bjorkqvist, Osterman, & Hjelt-Back, 1994; Cortina, Magley, Williams, & Langhout, 2001), but others found no gender differences (e.g., Einarsen & Skogstad, 1996; Leymann, 1996). In addition, the relationship between victim age and bullying seems to differ greatly across studies (Hoel et al., 1999; Rayner & Hoel, 1997). Overall, although environmental and personal characteristics have been examined as potential antecedents of workplace harassment, there is a need to get a more clear reading of the major trends.

Rather than separate characteristics of the perpetrator and the victim, their joint characteristics might be responsible for harassment. Regarding gender, for example, one study suggested that male bullies target both male and female victims but female bullies generally target only women (Rayner & Hoel, 1997). Observers often note there are likely to be power differences between perpetrator and victim (Bjorkqvist et al., 1994; Einarsen, 2000; Einarsen et al., 1994; Einarsen & Skogstad, 1996; Hoel et al., 1999). Types of power differences might include greater physical size, a more aggressive personality, a more powerful formal position in the organization, or numbers (more people on his or her side). Effects at the intersection of characteristics of the perpetrator and victim are an interesting theme, but little systematic empirical research exists on them.

Overall, therefore, individual differences are antecedent factors in the incidence of workplace harassment. At the organization level, however, the organization's climate and human resources systems are proposed to have an effect on the incidence of harassment, both directly and indirectly.

Consequences of Harassment: Roles of Attribution and Reciprocity

Theoretical and empirical work has identified negative consequences for both victims' and organizations' well-being (for reviews, see Einarsen & Mikkelsen, 2003; Hoel, Einarsen, & Cooper, 2003; Keashly & Jagatic, 2000). Some of the ultimate consequences in Figure 1 are victims' reactions that can be seen as reciprocal. Probably the most direct and obvious instances of reciprocity involve negative reactions toward the perpetrator (Box 10), which occur when the attribution is that the perpetrator him- or herself is mainly responsible for the harassment (Box 8b). There can also be reciprocity in negative reactions toward the organization (Boxes 11b and 12), however; that is, there are negative responses toward the organization in response to the organization allowing the harassment to occur. Other responses are directed at the self and resemble effects of work-related stress (Box 9) rather than reciprocity. Both reciprocity and stress outcomes are proposed to be mediated by attribution processes (Box 8).

In occupational research, aspects of one's work environment that could be harmful to the employee and require adaptive responses are often known as stressors (e.g., role conflict, role ambiguity), and the negative health consequences of those stressors are called strains (e.g., depression, physical symptoms; Jex, Beehr, & Roberts, 1992). Workplace harassment is one example of a stressor (Spector & Jex, 1998), and several strains have been investigated in relation to harassment. Figure 1 proposes this occurs primarily when victims attribute blame for the harassment to themselves (Box 8a). Indeed, the majority of victims and witnesses of bullying report experiencing at least some negative health and well-being (Box 9) consequences (Rayner, 1998), a sign harassment is a stressor.

It is easy to understand that the experience of harassment could harm one's self-image because being picked on implies low status and powerlessness. Seen this way, harassment is a form of stressor in the category of stress as offense to self (Semmer, McGrath, & Beehr, 2005). A few studies examined the relationship between workplace harassment and self-esteem (e.g., Ashforth, 1997; Frone, 2000), self-efficacy (e.g., Mikkelsen & Einarsen, 2002), or self-confidence (e.g., Vartia, 2001), but not all research actually found a relationship between workplace harassment and self-esteem (e.g., Duffy et al., 2002; Zapf, Knorz, & Kulla, 1996).

Theories of reciprocity in the form of employee retaliation (Skarlicki & Folger, 1997) or revenge (Bies & Tripp, 2005) suggest that when employees are harassed at work they are likely to experience feelings of injustice, resentment, and frustration that could result in reciprocation in the form of behaviors aimed at "getting even" with the organization. A norm of reciprocity is pervasive in many social activities and can have a powerful influence on human behavior (Cialdini, 2001; Gouldner, 1960). The work organization is a place where the reciprocity norm is especially strong, given that a primary reason for people's presence there is to exchange skills and effort for pay and respect. Therefore, reciprocal exchanges are expected, common, and considered appropriate. In Figure 1, the employees' final reactions to the effects of harassment can be considered here as reciprocity reactions; they complete a set of (negative) exchanges with the organization. In spite of the likelihood of these organizationally relevant reactions to the experience of workplace harassment, however, fewer studies have examined the potential effects of harassment on organizational welfare than have examined the effects on individual welfare. Consistent with this, several years ago in a small meta-analysis ($k = 2$), Spector and Jex (1998) found that interpersonal conflict correlated –.10 with job performance.

Figure 1 indicates that harassment leads to reciprocity through organizational justice perceptions (Box 11). Poor treatment by the organization or its members can lead to feelings of injustice (Colquitt, Conlon, Wesson, Porter, & Ng, 2001), and feelings of injustice have been linked to workplace harassment in a few studies (e.g., Cortina et al., 2001; Frone, 1998b; Tepper, 2000). The form of injustice that one experiences likely depends on whether victims attribute the cause of the harassment to themselves, to the perpetrator, or to the organization. Injustice is not experienced when victims attribute the harassment to themselves. In contrast, distributive and procedural injustice is experienced when the harassment is attributed to the organization, and interactional injustice is experienced when the harassment is attributed to the perpetrator. Perceptions of organizational injustice are proposed to result from attributions of causation to the organization (Box 8c), and the process of reciprocity then leads to lowered individual performance outcomes (Box 12), which include both in- and extrarole performance as well as withdrawal from and lower commitment to the organization.

Workplace Harassment as a Stressor Compared With Other Stressors

The potential consequences of workplace harassment are similar to those of other stressors, such as role ambiguity and role conflict (Box 6). As noted earlier, both harassment and role stressors are social phenomena, and it is logical to ask whether their effects are actually independent or are redundant with each other. Whereas decades of research examined the effects of role ambiguity and role conflict (Beehr & Glazer, 2005; Cooper & Dewe, 2004), research has only relatively recently begun to examine the stress effects of workplace harassment. Thus, it is logical to ask whether workplace harassment has effects that go beyond these more traditional, better-known stressors. We examined this question by applying hierarchical regression analysis.

The Meta-Analysis

Workplace harassment, interpersonal behavior aimed at intentionally harming another employee in the workplace, has garnered increasing interest among organizational researchers. It has important implications for the person being harassed and for the employing organization. The present study is a meta-analysis of its correlates. The model in Figure 1 proposes antecedents and consequences of workplace harassment, categorized as the victim is likely to perceive the situation. Both systemic organizational properties and individual difference characteristics are likely to influence the experience of harassment. Regarding the consequences of harassment, the model relies heavily on theories of attribution and reciprocity combining to explain, along with stress principles, many of the effects of harassment. Although there is good rationale for the model, data are not yet available to conduct a meta-analysis on all parts of the model or to test it as a complete structural model. Much research has, however, been conducted on direct links between harassment and most of the variables in the study. We examine this research as partial evidence regarding the model. Because previous meta-analyses were available on some of the relationships between role stressors (Box 6 in the model) and victims' well-being (Box 4 in the model), we were able also to test this particular mediated link by combining results gathered from those previous meta-analyses of occupational stress with results of the present meta-analysis of harassment.

Method

Potential antecedents and consequences of workplace harassment were subjected to meta-analysis. The PsycINFO computer database identified workplace harassment research published from 1987 through 2005. The search terms were *abuse*, *abusive supervision*, *aggression*, *bullying*, *harassment*, *incivility*, *interpersonal conflict*, *mistreatment*, *mobbing*, *petty tyranny*, and *social undermining*. The reference sections of the articles identified during this step were reviewed to find additional articles. Au-

thors who had recently published research on workplace harassment were also contacted to request copies of unpublished manuscripts.

These methods identified 168 journal articles, books, book chapters, unpublished manuscripts, theses, and dissertations. Some of these were either nonempirical or did not report any of the relationships examined by the meta-analyses. For example, Andersson and Pearson (1999) presented a theoretical basis for studying workplace incivility and Ashforth (1994) provided a conceptual discussion of the antecedents and consequences of petty tyranny. Such articles were excluded from the meta-analyses. Other studies (e.g., Budd, Arvey, & Lawless, 1996; Rospenda, Richman, Wislar, & Flaherty, 2000) failed to report statistics necessary to conduct the meta-analyses, such as a correlation coefficient, *N*, *F* ratio, exact *p*, or *t* statistic, and thus they were excluded. A number of studies (e.g., Baldwin, Daugherty, & Eckenfels, 1991; Richman, Flaherty, Rospenda, & Christensen, 1992; Sheehan, Sheehan, White, Leibowitz, & Baldwin, 1990; Silver & Glicken, 1990; Wolf, Randall, Von Almen, & Tynes, 1991) examined medical student harassment rather than workplace harassment. These studies were also excluded.

A total of 90 samples were included in the meta-analyses. Twenty-three of these samples came from unpublished sources (8 conference papers, 11 dissertations, 3 theses, and 1 manuscript submitted for publication). Each was a field study with data provided by employed adults. Several different measures of harassment scales were represented in the current meta-analysis. The most common harassment measures were the Interpersonal Conflict at Work Scale (ICAWS; Spector & Jex, 1998; 28 samples), the Negative Acts Questionnaire (Einarsen & Raknes, 1997; eight samples), and the Abusive Supervision Scale (Tepper, 2000; six samples). All studies examined the antecedents and/or consequences of harassment from self-report data provided by would-be victims rather than would-be perpetrators or third parties. Studies that measured any combination of victim-reported verbal, psychological, or physical harassment at work were selected for inclusion in the meta-analysis, but data involving vicarious harassment were excluded. A few studies used multiple measures of harassment (e.g., separate measures for verbal and physical harassment) or included separate measures of harassment that corresponded to different groups of perpetrators (e.g., supervisors, coworkers, or customers). In such cases, the correlations for the various measures were averaged to create a single studywise correlation for harassment.

Meta-Analytic Strategy

Only some parts of the model, derived theoretically in the introduction (see Figure 1), have actually been tested by previous empirical research—those parts involving role stressors, perpetrator and victim characteristics, organizational justice, victim's well-being, and individual performance outcomes. The rest of the model, including the attribution processes and the organizational variables that would be necessary for a clear test of reciprocity effects, needs future research.

We used Hunter and Schmidt's (2004) meta-analysis method. Zero-order correlations, sample sizes, and, when available, reliability data for predictors and criteria were used to conduct the meta-analysis. Average reliability data for each variable can be found in Table 1. If an article reported a measure of effect size other than correlations (e.g., *F* ratio or *t* value), equations provided by Hunter and Schmidt were used to transform the statistic into a correlation coefficient.

Correlations across samples were averaged, weighting each observed correlation by the study's sample size, and each correlation was corrected for unreliability in the predictor and criterion. Artifact distributions were used to estimate the value of missing reliability data; otherwise, the studies were individually corrected for unreliability. Credibility intervals and percentage of variance in effect sizes explained by artifacts were computed using the methods suggested by Hunter and Schmidt (2004).

Table 1
Average Internal Consistency Reliabilities for All Study Variables

Variable	Reliability (α)
Harassment	.81
Role conflict	.80
Role ambiguity	.82
Role overload	.80
Work constraints	.87
Autonomy	.82
Positive affectivity	.79
Negative affectivity	.86
Gender	1.00
Age	1.00
Tenure	1.00
Generic strain	.87
Anxiety	.86
Depression	.86
Burnout	.84
Frustration	.73
Positive emotions at work	.90
Negative emotions at work	.88
Self-esteem	.84
Life satisfaction	.88
Physical symptoms	.80
Job satisfaction	.83
Organizational commitment	.84
Organizational justice	.90
Job performance	.83
Organizational citizenship behavior	.89
Counterproductive work behavior	.87
Turnover intention	.83
Absenteeism	1.00

Note. Variables listed as having an alpha of 1.00 were assessed with single-item measures.

Hierarchical Regression Analysis Regarding Consequences

A growing number of studies have applied regression analysis to meta-analytically derived correlation matrices (Viswesvaran & Ones, 1995). In the current study, we used hierarchical regression analyses to examine whether workplace harassment was related to employee attitudes, strains, and behaviors after role ambiguity and role conflict were controlled. This was done because workplace harassment, as a stressor, tended to occur when other stressors were also present and data obtained from previous meta-analyses on role conflict and role ambiguity allowed us to test the incremental effects of harassment. These analyses used the parameter estimates obtained in the current meta-analysis as well as those obtained in a prior meta-analysis on role conflict and ambiguity (Collins, 1999; Crawford, 2000; Jackson & Schuler, 1985). We were thus limited to examining only those outcomes that had been previously addressed by the meta-analysis on the stressors of role conflict and role ambiguity.

First, we examined a regression model that included the traditional stressors of role ambiguity and role conflict as predictor variables. We then added the newer stressor, workplace harassment, to the model, observing the magnitude of its beta and the change in the percentage of variance explained. The sample size for each analysis was the harmonic mean of the sample sizes reported in the contributing meta-analyses (Viswesvaran & Ones, 1995).

We also examined the extent to which workplace harassment mediated the relationships between role ambiguity and role conflict on one hand and the outcome variables on the other. In these analyses, we computed the effect proportion mediated (P_M; Shrout & Bolger, 2002), which is a ratio

reflecting the extent to which the total effects of *X* on *Y* are explained by the indirect (i.e., mediated) effects of *X* on *Y*.

Moderator Analysis

We conducted moderator analysis to examine whether the relationships between harassment and its potential antecedents and consequences differed depending on whether the ICAWS (Spector & Jex, 1998) was used to assess harassment. More specifically, we were interested in examining whether the results obtained in the above analyses were influenced by the overrepresentation of studies using the ICAWS. This was important, as mentioned above, because 28 studies included in the meta-analysis used the ICAWS to measure harassment. We made no a priori predictions concerning the results of these moderator analyses.

Results

Results of the meta-analyses on the antecedents and consequences of workplace harassment are in Tables 2, 3, and 4.

Potential Antecedents of Harassment

As shown in Table 2, workplace harassment tends to occur in work environments where other stressors are present. Specifically, some other stressors, such as role conflict ($\rho = .44$), role ambiguity ($\rho = .30$), role overload ($\rho = .28$), and work constraints ($\rho = .53$), were all associated with workplace harassment. Autonomy ($\rho = -.25$) was another feature of the work environment associated with harassment.

Victim NA appears to play some role in workplace harassment ($\rho = .25$). In contrast, victim PA was only weakly related to harassment ($\rho = -.09$), as were victim demographic variables, such as gender (male = 1, female = 2; $\rho = -.05$), age ($\rho = -.04$), and tenure ($\rho = .02$).

Potential Consequences of Harassment

As shown in Table 3, workplace harassment was associated with victims' well-being. Specifically, harassment was positively associated with generic strains ($\rho = .35$), anxiety ($\rho = .31$), depression ($\rho = .34$), burnout ($\rho = .39$), frustration ($\rho = .40$), negative emotions at work ($\rho = .46$), and physical symptoms ($\rho = .31$), and it was negatively associated with positive emotions at work ($\rho = -.25$), self-esteem ($\rho = -.21$), life satisfaction ($\rho = -.21$), job satisfaction ($\rho = -.39$), and organizational commitment ($\rho = -.36$). Furthermore, as shown in Table 4, harassment was negatively associated with perceptions of organizational justice ($\rho = -.35$).

In contrast, as shown in Table 4, workplace harassment was associated with some individual performance outcomes but not with others. In particular, harassment was positively associated with counterproductive work behaviors ($\rho = .37$) and turnover intentions ($\rho = .35$), but it was weakly related to job performance ($\rho = -.08$), organizational citizenship behaviors ($\rho = -.03$), and absenteeism ($\rho = .06$).

Hierarchical Regression Analysis

Table 5 presents the results of the regression analyses. The analyses presented in the table used corrected correlations. We also conducted these analyses using uncorrected correlations, which yielded similar results as those presented in the table.

As shown in Table 5, both role ambiguity ($\beta = .14$) and role conflict ($\beta = .38$) were uniquely related to harassment. Together, these two stressors predicted 21% of the variance in workplace harassment. The hierarchical regression analyses, which are also depicted in the table, indicated that workplace harassment was related to a number of outcomes even after role ambiguity and role conflict were controlled. Specifically, harassment predicted practically significant amounts of incremental variance in burnout (R^2 change = .06), physical symptoms (R^2 change = .05), job satisfaction (R^2 change = .03), organizational commitment (R^2 change = .04), and turnover intention (R^2 change = .04).

Because the prior meta-analyses (Crawford, 2000; Jackson & Schuler, 1985) used to conduct these regression analyses examined role ambiguity's but not role conflict's relationships with depression and self-esteem, the regression analyses for these two outcome variables only controlled for role ambiguity. As shown in Table 5, workplace harassment predicted practically significant incremental variance in depression (R^2 change = .04) after role ambiguity was controlled.

Table 2
Relationships Between Workplace Harassment and Antecedents

Variable	*k*	*N*	Mean *r*	Mean ρ	SD_ρ	% variance accounted for	80% credibility interval
Role conflict	16	5,429	.35	.44	.08	37.39	.34, .55
Role ambiguity	22	6,759	.24	.30	.12	23.32	.14, .46
Role overload	25	7,343	.22	.28	.06	52.50	.19, .37
Work constraints	13	2,733	.44	.53	.14	18.64	.35, .72
Autonomy	13	2,823	−.20	−.25	.06	58.80	−.34, −.16
Victim positive affectivity	8	2,293	−.08	−.09	.09	37.96	−.21, .02
Victim negative affectivity	24	7,441	.21	.25	.14	17.41	.07, .44
Victim gender	11	2,921	−.05	−.05	.00	100.00	−.05, −.05
Victim age	16	4,822	−.04	−.04	.08	38.65	−.14, .05
Victim tenure	13	4,504	.01	.02	.02	88.75	.00, .04

Note. For gender, male = 1 and female = 2. *k* refers to the number of samples, *N* refers to the total sample size, mean *r* refers to the average weighted correlation coefficient, mean ρ refers to the average weighted correlation coefficient corrected for unreliability in both the predictor and criterion, and % variance accounted for refers to the variance accounted for by artifacts.

Table 3
Relationships Between Workplace Harassment and Consequences: Victims' Well-Being

Variable	k	N	Mean r	Mean ρ	SD_ρ	% variance accounted for	80% credibility interval
Generic strain	27	17,663	.29	.35	.08	23.00	.24, .46
Anxiety	16	4,918	.25	.31	.11	26.29	.17, .45
Depression	16	5,625	.28	.34	.12	18.81	.18, .50
Burnout	9	5,633	.33	.39	.16	7.10	.18, .61
Frustration	16	3,613	.30	.40	.08	48.91	.29, .51
Positive emotions at work	4	1,783	−.21	−.25	.03	65.73	−.30, −.20
Negative emotions at work	7	1,549	.38	.46	.13	21.48	.28, .64
Self-esteem	9	3,066	−.17	−.21	.14	14.94	−.40, −.02
Life satisfaction	3	1,851	−.18	−.21	.00	100.00	−.21, −.21
Physical symptoms	33	13,878	.25	.31	.11	23.00	.17, .46
Job satisfaction	42	19,871	−.32	−.39	.10	22.70	−.52, −.25
Organizational commitment	16	9,224	−.30	−.36	.15	9.42	−.55, −.16

Note. Generic strain measures assessed multiple strains (e.g., depression and physical symptoms) in a single scale. k refers to the number of samples, N refers to the total sample size, mean r refers to the average weighted correlation coefficient, mean ρ refers to the average weighted correlation coefficient corrected for unreliability in both the predictor and criterion, and % variance accounted for refers to the variance accounted for by artifacts.

Table 5 also presents the P_M (Shrout & Bolger, 2002), which examines the extent to which workplace harassment mediated the effects of role ambiguity and role conflict on the outcome variables. The results of these analyses indicated that in general, the indirect effects of role ambiguity and role conflict on the outcome variables accounted for only a small proportion of the total effects of role ambiguity and role conflict on the outcome variables. The largest P_M, for example, was .42 (the relationship between role ambiguity and physical symptoms). Thus, the indirect effects of role ambiguity on physical symptoms that were mediated through workplace harassment explained 42% of the total effects of role ambiguity on physical symptoms. Many of the other P_Ms included in Table 5 were much closer to .00, suggesting that overall the direct effects were stronger than the indirect effects.

The ICAWS as a Moderator

The moderator analyses compared the effect sizes of studies using the ICAWS (Spector & Jex, 1998) with those of studies not using the ICAWS to measure harassment. These moderator analyses were not practical for some of the variables in Tables 2, 3, and 4 because grouping studies on the basis of whether they used the ICAWS would yield a very small number of samples (k) for the moderator analyses. We thus conducted moderator analyses on those variables where the k for both the ICAWS studies and the non-ICAWS studies was four or more.

In these analyses, we examined practical rather than statistical significance. We did this because with large Ns, differences in effect sizes that are trivial by practical standards may yield statistical significance. For the present moderator analyses, we judged the difference between effect sizes for a given variable to be practically significant if differences in percentages of variance explained (ρ^2) between ICAWS and non-ICAWS measures were 5% or greater.

For several variables, the effect sizes did not yield any practical differences across type of harassment measure used (see Table 6). Specifically, harassment yielded similar relationships with role overload, gender, age, tenure, generic strains, physical symptoms, job satisfaction, and turnover intention regardless of whether the ICAWS or some other measure was used to assess harassment. Studies using the ICAWS did, however, yield larger corrected correlations than did studies not using the ICAWS for role conflict (ρ = .52 vs. ρ = .36), role ambiguity (ρ = .36 vs. ρ = .22), NA (ρ = .35 vs. ρ = .20), anxiety (ρ = .46 vs. ρ = .25), and depression (ρ = .42 vs. ρ = .28). Autonomy, in contrast, was the only variable for which non-ICAWS studies yielded an average corrected correlation that was practically greater than that of the ICAWS studies (ρ = –.34 vs. ρ = –.20).

Table 4
Relationships Between Workplace Harassment and Consequences: Organizational Justice and Individual Performance Outcomes

Variable	k	N	Mean r	Mean ρ	SD_ρ	% variance accounted for	80% credibility interval
Organizational justice	8	2,061	−.29	−.35	.13	23.22	−.51, −.18
Job performance	5	976	−.06	−.08	.00	100.00	−.08, −.08
Organizational citizenship behavior	5	1,493	−.02	−.03	.18	12.43	−.26, .19
Counterproductive work behavior	9	2,584	.30	.37	.06	53.18	.29, .46
Turnover intention	24	13,961	.29	.35	.11	18.93	.21, .49
Absenteeism	5	1,267	.06	.06	.06	52.91	−.01, .15

Note. k refers to the number of samples, N refers to the total sample size, mean r refers to the average weighted correlation coefficient, mean ρ refers to the average weighted correlation coefficient corrected for unreliability in both the predictor and criterion, and % variance accounted for refers to the variance accounted for by artifacts.

Table 5
Incremental Validity of Workplace Harassment Controlling for Other Stressors (Role Ambiguity and Role Conflict)

Dependent variable	Predictor	N	β	R^2 change	Effect proportion mediated (P_M)
Harassment	Role ambiguity	6,996	.14**	.21**	
	Role conflict		.38**		
Anxiety	Role ambiguity	5,921	.34**	.29**	.02
	Role conflict		.24**	.00**	.14
	Workplace harassment		.10**		
Depression	Role ambiguity	1,289	.45**	.26**	.11
	Workplace harassment		.21**	.04**	
Burnout	Role ambiguity	5,070	.17**	.16**	.19
	Role conflict		.16**	.06**	.38
	Workplace harassment		.27**		
Physical symptoms	Role ambiguity	947	.04	.07**	.42
	Role conflict		.14**	.05**	.39
	Workplace harassment		.24**		
Self-esteem	Role ambiguity	3,672	−.30**	.12**	.11
	Workplace harassment		−.12**	.01**	
Job satisfaction	Role ambiguity	8,173	−.29**	.31**	.09
	Role conflict		−.28**	.03**	.20
	Workplace harassment		−.18**		
Organizational commitment	Role ambiguity	4,718	−.28**	.21**	.09
	Role conflict		−.15**	.04**	.34
	Workplace harassment		−.21**		
Turnover intention	Role ambiguity	4,898	.15**	.14**	.16
	Role conflict		.18**	.04**	.34
	Workplace harassment		.23**		
Absence	Role ambiguity	1,256	.16**	.02**	.05
	Role conflict		−.11**	.01*	.22
	Workplace harassment		.06*		

Note. N is the harmonic mean of the individual sample sizes for the parameters that contribute to each analysis. All betas are from the final regression model after workplace harassment was added. The first change in R^2 reflects the percentage of variance in the dependent variable explained on the first step of the regression equation. The second change in R^2 reflects the incremental variance in the dependent variable explained by adding workplace harassment to the regression equation.
* $p < .05$. ** $p < .01$.

Discussion

The meta-analysis yielded some important findings concerning the potential causes and consequences of workplace harassment. It appears that characteristics of the work environment (e.g., other stressors) might strongly contribute to workplace harassment. This finding can be interpreted in a number of ways. First, employees who work in stressful work environments may have a tendency to become victims of harassment because the stressors in their jobs produce behavioral and affective reactions that encourage others to victimize them. Second, individuals who report the presence of other stressors could potentially be reporting a negative ambient work environment that would-be perpetrators are also experiencing. Such negative work environments might encourage would-be perpetrators to engage in harassing behaviors. Overall, this might suggest a climate in which harassment is common.

Compared with the environmental antecedents, victims' individual differences (dispositional and demographic characteristics) seem to have little influence on whether an employee is harassed. Victims' NA was an exception, and it could influence harassment in a number of ways. For example, NA might predispose individuals to perceive the presence of harassment regardless of whether harassment has actually occurred. Other possibilities are that NA influences the tendency for employees to self-select into work environments where harassment is already common or it might predispose employees to engage in behaviors that provoke mistreatment from others. Although each of these possibilities is interesting, the current meta-analysis cannot address them directly and they thus need to be examined in future empirical studies.

It is also possible that NA is a consequence of workplace harassment. Being continually abused could certainly have an effect on one's personality. This might especially be true among individuals exposed to extremely severe or chronic forms of harassment. It is likewise possible that self-esteem could be either an antecedent or consequence of harassment. Unfortunately, little longitudinal research has been conducted to examine the causal relationships between workplace harassment on one hand and NA and self-esteem on the other.

In addition to NA, we would expect other personality characteristics of victims to play a role. Conscientiousness and agreeableness, for example, might both be negatively associated with harassment. Supervisors should have better relationships with conscientious subordinates, and thus conscientiousness would be negatively associated with harassment from supervisors. Furthermore, agreeableness is likely to be negatively related to harassment because agreeable employees are more pleasant to be around and are less likely to engage in behaviors that provoke harassment. Subordinate agreeableness and conscientiousness might be seen by supervisors as indicators of competence; rather than being ha-

Table 6
Moderator Analyses by Harassment Scale

Variable	Scale	k	N	Mean r	Mean ρ	SD_ρ	% variance accounted for	80% credibility interval
Role conflict	ICAWS	12	2,729	.41	.52	.00	100.00	(.52, .52)
	Other	4	2,700	.30	.36	.08	21.19	(.25, .47)
Role ambiguity	ICAWS	17	3,864	.29	.36	.05	62.57	(.29, .44)
	Other	5	2,895	.18	.22	.14	9.83	(.03, .40)
Role overload	ICAWS	19	5,835	.22	.29	.06	55.99	(.21, .37)
	Other	6	1,508	.19	.24	.08	44.36	(.13, .35)
Autonomy	ICAWS	9	1,878	−.17	−.20	.09	45.41	(−.31,−.08)
	Other	4	945	−.25	−.34	.00	100.00	(−.34,−.34)
Negative affectivity	ICAWS	10	2,605	.28	.35	.07	46.85	(.25, .44)
	Other	14	4,836	.18	.20	.15	13.46	(.01, .39)
Gender	ICAWS	5	1,251	−.06	−.07	.00	100.00	(−.07,−.07)
	Other	6	1,670	−.04	−.04	.00	100.00	(−.04,−.04)
Age	ICAWS	6	1,033	.01	.01	.05	74.17	(−.05, .08)
	Other	10	3,789	−.05	−.05	.08	31.73	(−.16, .05)
Tenure	ICAWS	4	817	.05	.06	.00	100.00	(.06, .06)
	Other	9	3,687	.01	.01	.01	92.89	(.00, .02)
Generic strain	ICAWS	5	2,905	.32	.38	.02	76.43	(.35, .41)
	Other	22	14,758	.29	.34	.09	20.38	(.22, .46)
Anxiety	ICAWS	7	1,244	.37	.46	.00	100.00	(.46, .46)
	Other	9	3,674	.22	.25	.09	27.29	(.13, .37)
Depression	ICAWS	8	2,244	.35	.42	.09	30.08	(.29, .54)
	Other	8	3,381	.24	.28	.11	16.23	(.13, .43)
Physical symptoms	ICAWS	17	3,737	.21	.29	.07	56.83	(.19, .39)
	Other	16	10,141	.26	.31	.11	14.29	(.16, .46)
Job satisfaction	ICAWS	20	6,162	−.29	−.35	.00	97.82	(−.36,−.34)
	Other	22	13,709	−.33	−.39	.12	13.84	(−.54,−.23)
Turnover intention	ICAWS	10	2,358	.31	.37	.11	29.49	(.23, .51)
	Other	14	11,603	.28	.35	.10	16.57	(.21, .49)

Note. For gender, male = 1 and female = 2. k refers to the number of samples, N refers to the total sample size, mean r refers to the average weighted correlation coefficient, mean ρ refers to the average weighted correlation coefficient corrected for unreliability in both the predictor and criterion, and % variance accounted for refers to the variance accounted for by artifacts. ICAWS = Interpersonal Conflict at Work Scale (Spector & Jex, 1998).

rassed by supervisors, agreeable and conscientious subordinates are likely to be part of the supervisor's favored in-group, in terms of leader–member exchange theory (Gerstner & Day, 1997). Unfortunately, evidence regarding these hypotheses about harassment awaits future research.

Harassment as a Stressor

Workplace harassment was clearly associated, negatively, with victims' well-being. This supports the idea that harassment is a stressor, having effects similar to other workplace stressors. It is also interesting that workplace harassment was related to a number of outcomes even after role conflict and role ambiguity were controlled. Role ambiguity and role conflict are stressors that consider the nature of the demands or expectations of people (e.g., Cooper & Dewe, 2004), whereas workplace harassment represents a stressor that is a threat to self (Semmer et al., 2005). Both are, however, social stressors in the sense that the presumed causal stimuli are actions of others in the workplace, highlighting the importance of the social setting. The incremental variance in individual outcomes predicted by workplace harassment suggests that future research on social aspects of occupational stress should include measures of harassment in addition to measures of more traditional stressors, such as role ambiguity and role conflict.

The Model

Although only parts of the model have been tested empirically thus far, the meta-analytic results support the parts that have been tested. Among the model's antecedents, some victim characteristics, especially NA and tenure, are related to harassment, but organizational characteristics and perpetrator characteristics still need to be studied. The unavailability of studies of perpetrator characteristics could be due to the heavy reliance on single-source methods in the research. That is, most of the studies were done by asking for information from victims. This characteristic of the research is part of the reason why we formed a model of the victim's view of harassment, but it also is why there is not much information available on perpetrator characteristics. When surveying only victims, it is easy to measure the victim's NA or PA, for example, but it is not possible to measure these characteristics in the perpetrators.

Among harassment's consequences, victims' well-being has been a centerpiece of the research, and there is strong support for this link in the model. Furthermore, the model's proposal of other stressors as partial mediators between harassment and the victim's well-being received good support. There is also support for the link to organizational justice and mixed support for a link to individual performance outcomes. Links of harassment to turnover intentions,

counterproductive work behaviors, and job performance were supported but not links to organizational citizenship behaviors and absenteeism. It should be acknowledged, however, that turnover intention and counterproductive work behaviors might be antecedents rather than consequences of harassment. In other words, it seems possible that employees who openly express an interest in leaving the organization or who engage in counterproductive work behaviors might be target for harassment. The nonexperimental, cross-sectional data of the studies reviewed did not allow an empirical investigation into this issue, however.

Overall, therefore, the parts of the model that have been tested are quite well supported. Obviously however, more research is needed on the other parts. Most of the research has examined relationships between harassment and some antecedents and/or some consequences; it has, however, tended to take a "black box" approach and has ignored potential reasons for the relationships examined (e.g., antecedent organizational conditions and attribution consequences).

Moderator Analyses

In an effort to examine whether the results of the meta-analysis were impacted by the overrepresentation of studies using the ICAWS (Spector & Jex, 1998) to measure harassment, we conducted moderator analyses to examine whether the ICAWS yielded different effect sizes than did non-ICAWS measures. For many variables, there were no practical differences. When practical differences did exist, effect sizes were generally greater for the ICAWS than for non-ICAWS measures. Even when practical differences did exist, however, the direction of the relationships between harassment and the other variables were the same for both the ICAWS and non-ICAWS measures. Thus, the results obtained in the current meta-analysis concerning the direction of the relationships between harassment and its predictors and consequences were not influenced by the overrepresentation of ICAWS studies. In other words, the overrepresentation of ICAWS studies did not impact the general conclusions provided by the current meta-analysis.

We should note, however, that the differences in effect sizes between ICAWS and non-ICAWS studies is potentially the result of artifacts rather than being indicative of a substantive moderating effect. More specifically, second-order sampling error, which is a problem among small k meta-analyses, occurs when the results of a meta-analysis are influenced by which studies happen to be available to the researcher (Hunter & Schmidt, 2004). This is consistent with the fact that most of the moderator analyses that appeared to detect practically significant differences in effect sizes between the two types of harassment measures were generally for variables with a small number of studies (e.g., k of 10 or less) using either the ICAWS or non-ICAWS measures.

Future Research

The stress theme suggests additional topics for future empirical work. Some specific variables in the model still need empirical research to link them to workplace harassment. These include the organizational variables of culture and climate, the nature of human resource systems that might be responsible for the existence of people with characteristics of likely perpetrators (or likely victims), and the number of victims and perpetrators present in an organization. In addition, the model introduces attribution processes as an important explanatory variable, and it needs to be tested. Future research, therefore, is recommended on the relationships between harassment and these variables. It is especially important for future research to test the three attributional types (Boxes 8a, 8b, and 8c in the model) as mediating variables between harassment and the outcomes.

Another suggestion is the testing of moderator variables. There are at least two moderator variables commonly suggested by occupational stress theory and research. Social support is one (see the meta-analysis by Viswesvaran, Sanchez, & Fisher, 1999). Social support might be the antithesis of harassment, if it were widespread. That is, if everyone is supportive, then there is no harassment. If there is only one supportive person (i.e., the support is not widespread) in the victim's environment, however, then this might be enough to help alleviate the otherwise harmful effects of harassment. Moderation of stressor–strain relationships by social support might be most likely to occur when social support matches or is particularly important in regard to the specific stressor in some way (Cohen & Wills, 1985). Social support seems to match the stressor of workplace harassment very well because both are interpersonal in nature and because support can show respect to the victim that might counteract the threat to esteem that comes from harassment. Future research based on the matching hypothesis and examining potential interactions between workplace harassment as a stressor and social support is needed.

A second theoretical moderator common in occupational stress research is job control, which is a major element in demand–control theory of occupational stress (e.g., see the review by Van Der Doef & Maes, 1999). Control over a situation tends to make otherwise stressful situations less distressing, but exactly what type of control would be most effective in a harassing situation is undetermined. It is unfortunate that empirical research on harassment has not examined theoretical moderators such as these, and this therefore remains a goal for future research.

Future research should also address the attributional processes that occur when one is harassed. In addition to testing the model with the type of harassment proposed in the current article, research could examine the role of attributions in (a) vicarious workplace harassment and (b) sexual harassment. Individuals could report the presence of vicarious harassment when they perceive that their coworkers are victims. Vicarious harassment is likely to produce negative consequences even in employees who are not victims because such individuals could empathize with the victim, make cognitive judgments about the situation (e.g., justice judgments), and have a reaction about a workplace in which such activities occur. In some instances, they could of course fear that they too will become victims—perhaps especially in situations in which the victims resembled themselves in some way (e.g., hierarchical position or job type). It could thus be expected that vicarious harassment has consequences that are similar to but milder than other forms of harassment. This needs to be tested in future research, however.

Attributional processes are also likely to be relevant to sexual harassment. The victim could blame herself (assuming women are the more common target of sexual harassment), resulting in self-deprecating attitudes and perhaps in behaviors such as

leaving the workplace. Alternatively, she could blame the perpetrator and develop negative attitudes and behaviors mainly toward him (assuming men are more commonly the perpetrators). If she attributes blame primarily to the organization, however, sexual harassment complaints and lawsuits would be more likely to follow.

Individual Performance and Satisfaction

The current meta-analysis also found a relationship with some individual performance outcomes, such as counterproductive work behaviors and turnover intention. Of interest, harassment was not strongly related to job performance. Job performance is multidimensional, and it is possible that harassment is differentially related to different performance dimensions. Being harassed by a supervisor, for instance, could increase employees' quantitative performance while inhibiting their qualitative performance. Studies included in the current meta-analysis, however, reported only the relationships between harassment and global performance. Furthermore, the relative small number of studies examining the relationship between harassment and job performance ($k = 5$) precludes any moderator analysis for these relationships.

Similar to job performance, job satisfaction is multidimensional, that is, there are facets of satisfaction. The relationship between workplace harassment and facet-specific job satisfactions has been examined very little, but some relationship was evident (e.g., Cortina et al., 2001; Keashly, Trott, & MacLean, 1994). Future empirical study of facet satisfactions is warranted. The "social" facets (e.g., satisfaction with supervisors and coworkers) seem especially likely foci for such research because other people are the source of workplace harassment. Particularly, harassment perpetrated by coworkers is likely to be related to satisfaction with coworkers and harassment perpetrated by supervisors is likely to be related to satisfaction with supervision. All harassment, regardless of the type of perpetrator, is likely to be related to satisfaction with supervision because most employees are likely to consider it the responsibility of management to prevent their employees from being victimized.

Because of the negative outcomes associated with workplace harassment, it is unfortunate that state and federal governments as well as employers do not generally regard harassment as a greater priority. Legislation, guidelines for the promotion of nonharassing workplaces, and budgets for research into the topic appear warranted. Organizations also have something to gain from giving more of their attention to harassment. Some of the consequences of harassment are likely to impact the effectiveness and functioning of the employing organization, including the potential effects of harassment on employees' job satisfaction, organizational commitment, perceptions of organizational justice, and employee withdrawal. Research on organizational efforts aimed at the reduction of harassment is needed. Workplace harassment is also an issue in which labor unions should take a keen interest, considering their historical concern for worker well-being. Unions have traditionally played an important role in protecting their members from abuses by the employer or the employers' representatives (e.g., supervisors and managers), but they may or may not see their protective role as clearly in cases where the perpetrator might be a coworker who is another union member. This is an area for future research.

Implications and Limitations

The findings of the current meta-analysis have important practical implications. First, it appears that organizations might be able to combat workplace harassment by eliminating or reducing other workplace stressors. Although the reduction of workplace stressors is important for its own sake and a number of interventions have been developed to reduce workplace stressors, employers seldom actually use such interventions for stress reduction (Beehr & O'Driscoll, 2002). Regarding role stressors, the type of stressors investigated in the regression analysis in the present study, such interventions include role clarification and reducing competing demands on people's time, but interventions aimed at other types of work stressors include increasing social support in the workplace (almost the opposite of workplace harassment), participation in decision making, and some structural changes (Beehr & O'Driscoll, 2002). Social support as a stress reducer seems so clearly related to harassment (negatively) that it might be especially effective, although research is needed to verify this.

The relationship between NA and workplace harassment also has important practical implications for preventing victimization. Organizations might closely monitor those high in NA to prevent them from becoming victims of harassment, for instance. Unfortunately, little research has been conducted on the characteristics of potential perpetrators of harassment. Once it is clearly understood who is likely to become a perpetrator, organizations could use selection tests to screen-out potentially aggressive employees or organizations could closely monitor individuals who are prone to become harassers. This approach, however, awaits further research to identify perpetrator characteristics.

It is important to note certain limitations of the current meta-analysis. First, the studies included in the analyses used all self-report measures. Thus, common-method variance might have artificially inflated some of the correlations that we obtained. Second, the fact that all of the studies also used cross-sectional and nonexperimental data makes it impossible to draw strong conclusions concerning the causal relationships between harassment and the other variables included in the study. Finally, all the studies examined workplace harassment only from the perspective of the victim. Each of these methodological characteristics of the previous research has obvious implications for future research needs.

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